PHILOSOPHY AND THEOLOGY

NON-CLASSICAL EPISTEMOLOGY OF V. LEKTORSKY

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Annotation. *In disregard for contemporary postmodern thinking the author of the article analyzes the ideas of V. Lektorsky in the context of paradigmatic thinking of non-classical philosophy in the field of epistemology. Particular value lies in a very precise definition of the main features of classical and non-classical epistemology. The mentioned definition allows not merely to understand the limitations of posing problems in classical epistemology, but also to pose problems in non-classical epistemology. In this regard, there is an expansion of the field of study of knowledge and cognition in comparison with the classical epistemology. This requires a revision of a number of philosophical ideas. In this sense, it is namely communication, interpreted both as a dialogue and as rational criticism, which is the main theme of non-classical epistemology. The dialogical nature of thinking leads not only to the transformation of thinking itself, but also expands its nature. As a result, firstly, perception appears as a special form of thinking. And secondly, thinking and experience interact and influence each other so much that there is no sharp difference.*

Non-classical epistemology comes to rethinking the basis of classical epistemology - the subject. The non-classical understanding of the Self, which is being developed in the philosophy of the 20th century, refuses the understanding of the Self that was formulated by Descartes. Postmodernists conclude that the I itself has disappeared in modern cultures, on the basis of the fact that Self – is the result of communicative relations, postmodernists conclude that the I itself has disappeared in modern cultures. But V. Lektorsky states that communication flows do not dissolve the I. On the contrary,

this leads to an increase in the role of creativity, which means an increase in individualization. Thuswise, we are witnessing the fact that, in place of the linguistic turn, modern thought has moved to a cognitive, epistemological one.

Keywords: *non-classical epistemology, extra-scientific form of thinking, critical philosophy, fundamentalism, science-centrism, subject.*

The formation of a philosophical paradigm – is a complex historical process that includes the transformation of all spheres of philosophical thought. It can run diachronically and non-linearly. Accumulation of problems, which cannot be solved on the basis of previous approaches, sooner or later causes a kind of "explosion" of fundamental philosophy, which can be compared with the Big Bang theory in physics, resulting in the birth of galaxies that scatter from each other. The result was the birth of a fan of multidirectional methodological approaches, which fundamentally began to change the attitude not only to the process of cognition, but also to the perception of knowledge as such. As a whole, the right amount of theoretical material was accumulated from the end of the XIX to the end of the XX centuries, which made it possible to speak about the paradigmatic nature of methodologies in non-classical philosophy.

V. Lektorsky is one of the few contemporary philosophers who consciously develops the methodology of the non-classical philosophical paradigm. "However a tendency to distinguish between epistemology and gnoseology can be recorded, in non-classical philosophy, which is based on initial categorical oppositions" (Epistemology, 2020, p. 1). The term itself, introduced by the Scottish philosopher J. Ferrier in the XIX century, gained popularity in the XX century. The active development of different schools of non-classical methodologies began to replace the term "theory of knowledge". And it is not by chance. If the basis of gnoseology is the opposition "subject – object", epistemology, in its turn, is based on the opposition "object – knowledge". That is, it is not the gnoseological subject, which becomes the basis, but the objective structures of knowledge. This leads to the following result: consciousness, "participating in the process of cognition, is taken into account indirectly" (Epistemology, 2020, p. 1).

V. Lektorsky equates gnoseology with classical epistemology. And he even determines the time of the historical and philosophical design of the latter. "I believe that classical epistemology got formed in the XVII century, after a well-known "epistemological turn," when theoretical-and-cognitive topics became central to philosophy, while epistemology began to play the role of the "first philosophy" (Lektorsky, 2009, page 9). Prior to this, V. Lektorsky notes, it was also developed, starting with Plato, but its development depended on ontological issues. For this purpose, "in my opinion, the way of setting and discussing epistemological problems that arose in the XVII century should be considered classic one" (Lektorsky, 2009, p. 9).

The main difference between the science of Modern times and the science of antiquity is that the facts are not so much described as they are formed, constructed. "Modern scientific thinking, in contrast to scientific thinking in antiquity, arises and develops within the framework of a projective-and-constructive attitude towards the

world" (Lektorsky, 2001, p. 41).

If the main goal of the theory in the ancient world – is the understanding of natural phenomena by proving on the basis of intuitive but true premises, then the scientific thinking of the theoretician of the New Time operates with ideal objects.
Moreover, the experiment is such a method of studying nature, refusing to oppose natural and artificial processes and having a closed system that is controlled by the subject. Thence follows the thesis about the possibility of accurate prediction of the event's future processes. And if we can predict the processes, then we can own them.

An important consequence of this approach is the sharp opposition between scientific and non-scientific thinking. Namely, if mental formations cannot be reproduced in real or ideal activity, which means that the subject cannot control them, then they must go beyond the limits of science. Such phenomena include ordinary experience or religion. At the same time, it is not just a matter of distinguishing between scientific and non-scientific thinking, namely, only scientific thinking is true perception of reality.

V. Lektorsky draws attention to the fact that the founders of the science of Modern times were religious people according to their personal convictions, but the attitude towards the world that they formed was fundamentally different from the religious one. It is no coincidence that the ideology of scientism has a sharply negative attitude towards all non-scientific forms of thinking.

Contemporary science is shaped by experience in which artificial conditions are formed, when an ordinary person acts in a way, which could never occur in reality. The sharp discontinuity occurs between scientific thinking and the tradition of common sense.

As a consequence, R. Descartes comes to a radical doubt about the existence of everything except the consciousness of the subject. Alternatively, if the consciousness of the subject is able to control the external world, then the need arises to control the consciousness itself. The idea of the Method arises, leading to self-control over mental operations. Namely the latter ones allow you to gain new knowledge. As a result, the main idea of the European philosophy of the New Age is formed, which focuses on the close connection between self-reflection and true freedom. The philosophy of subjectivity determined all the problems of ontology, epistemology and social philosophy. And even all the processes of searching for an objective position are nothing but the reverse side of subjectivity and anthropocentrism. The XX century is a search for a way out of the Cartesian opposition of consciousness and the objective world.

And then V. Lektorsky rightly notes that a way out of this situation is possible only if the value-and-cognitive attitude underlying the technological civilization is criticized. "Rethinking this attitude means a new understanding of man and nature, the rootedness of man in being and in interhuman communications" (Lektorsky, 2001, page 45). It is the new ontology of "I", which forms a new attitude of man towards nature and which is able to overcome anthropocentrism. As an example, V. Lektorsky points out the ideas of co-evolution by M. Moiseev. As a whole, the line of thought is correct, but still has its limitations, because the dialogism between human and nature is limited and it is not

tantamount.

In designing non-classical epistemology, V. Lektorsky points out the special significance of I. Prigozhyn's "philosophy of instability". The latter holds a viewpoint that classical or traditional science is based on the idea of stability, order, balance and homogeneity of closed systems with linear relations. But this is a rather small part of reality. Most of reality is unstable, not ordered, non-equilibrium, non-linear. However, most of the systems of the Universe are not open systems. At the turning points it is fundamentally unrealistic to foresee the configurations of these systems (bifurcation points). At the same time, the influence of random, single events is interpreted differently. It is the latter ones, and not universal laws, that are able to determine the future in such unstable systems. Of course, the operation of universal laws is not canceled in situations of equilibrium and stability.

A very important aspect for epistemology is the analysis of the psychological basis of perception. Thus, V. Lektorsky points out Gibson's psychological concept of perception. Based on the experiments of the latter, "perception is not a process "inside" the subject, but a method of the subject's action in the world" (Lektorsky, 2001, p. 49). The fundamental idea, which V. Lektorsky draws attention to, is that a new approach to the study of perception is possible only if we manage to renounce associating the structure of reality with the image, provided by modern natural science and specifically by physics. And the point is not that it is deceptive, but that it is a level of reality with which a being (animal or human) has no specific connection. The ontology of the environment resembles an anti-scientific everyday consciousness.

The development of experimental psychology by Freud, Wund, Watson was based on the approach of classical experimental natural science. But L. Vygotsky and A. Leontiev found that such an approach was confirmed only occasionally. And in the 50s and 60s, W. Allport, A. Maslow, K. Rogers, R. May proceeded from the position that psychology is not a science, based on those scientific positions that were formed as the ideal of knowledge.

Reflecting on the relationship between science and religion, V. Lektorsky draws attention to the fact that classical physics laid down the certainty of all future movements in the Universe, through the laws of mechanics. Thuswise, this approach excluded the meaning of the Holy Spirit's idea, as well as the creative volitional beginning of the human person. "From the point of view of V. V. Mityugov, one may speak of a profound antagonism between the pagan ancient Greek model of rational cognition (underlying the entire modern natural science) and the Christian foundations of the moral structure of life. Hence follows the statement of Laplace that in natural science it is quite possible to do without the hypothesis of God" (Lektorsky, 2001, p. 53). This means that scientific psychology is in the same incompatible state with regard to Christian religious ontology. Scientific psychology does not allow room for the soul and spirit, Starting from the experimental psychology of W. Wundt (behaviorism), ending with modern cognitive psychology.

In this sense, the collective monograph "Principles of Christian Psychology" is

considered an event, the monograph states: "The history of scientific psychology is a history of losses, the first and main of which was the loss of the soul" (Principles of Christian Psychology, 1995, p. 4). At the same time, researchers pay attention to the fact that the means of religious knowledge turned out to be more objective and accurate than scientific ones, in relation to the spiritual world. Therefore, it is noted that the ontology of Christian psychology cannot be morally neutral, unlike classical science. Its methodology is not an individually realized cognition, it is jointly (synergistically) united with Christ.

V. Lektorsky highlights the essential features of classical epistemology. One of the first features is criticism. Any attainments must be substantiated. It is the topic of justification that has taken a central place in Western European philosophy since the XVII century. From this time on begins the criticism of classical metaphysics. "For F. Bacon and R. Descartes, this is a critique of scholastic metaphysics and peripatetic science" (Lektorsky, 2009, p. 10). D. Berkeley criticized Newton's ideas of absolute space and time. The critical epistemology of I. Kant is aimed at proving inconsistency of the mentioned theory in relation to ontology. The positivists used the epistemological principle of verification to criticize not only philosophy, but science as well.

Fundamentalism and normativism are the next peculiarity of classical epistemology; that is, knowledge must have a foundation about which there is no doubt. Thus, epistemology has been used as a means of legitimizing or asserting knowledge.

According to V. Lektorsky, the next feature is subject-centrism: "For empiricists, such an undeniable status is possessed by the data in my mind – sensations. For rationalists, these are a priori forms of consciousness of the subject" (Lektorsky, 2009, p. 10).

Science-centrism. Epistemology became classical precisely once science had emerged. And hence it was science that became the measure of Truth. That is why "Kantian epistemology can be understood as a justification for classical Newtonian mechanics" (Lektorsky, 2009, p. 14). But it is Kant, from the point of view of the metaphysics' existence, who "is trying to show that the latter is impossible" (Lektorsky, 2009, p. 15). And therefore it is namely Kant who proves its limitations, at the pinnacle of classical epistemology. And so, for neo-Kantians, epistemology is possible only as a theory of science.

In this regard, the field of studying knowledge and cognition is expanding, compared to classical philosophy. This requires a revision of a number of philosophical ideas. V. Lektorsky points out that the classical approach of epistemology fundamentally interprets knowledge as a factor of power over nature and control of social processes. "But another approach towards knowledge is also possible - as a dialogue between the knower and the known, each of which plays the role of an independent partner" (Lektorsky, 2001, p. 11), as well as building a new type of social practices. In this sense, the main topic of non-classical epistemology is namely the communication, interpreted simultaneously as dialogue and as rational criticism.

When it comes to rethinking all the elements of classical psychology, V. Lektorsky has an interesting section on thinking and experience. Analyzing the methods of thinking

on the basis of classical empiricism, he formulates a very important thesis from the point of view of the non-classical epistemology's formation: "...attempts to consistently implement the concept of empiricism failed: it turned out that experience itself and the activity of processing it (in particular, induction) presuppose non-experiential components" (Lektorsky, 2001, p. 139). And even rationalism, in turn, refers to experience as "dark" knowledge, a kind of impulse to thinking that reveals the empirical content of
"innate" ideas.

Kant's approach has a special position towards empiricism and rationalism. First of all, he distinguishes perception and experience. At the same time, perception does not presuppose thinking. The task of perception is to organize sensations by means of a priori forms of space and time. On the other hand, experience is "possible only on the basis of the introduction of a priori categories of reason to sensory perception, i.e., it is the result of the constructive activity of thinking" (Lektorsky, 2001, p. 140). Thus, thinking is a kind of fusion of the a priori and the empirical notions.

The creative development of this idea is available in the works by E. Husserl. True thinking is given only to the subject in the act of experiencing, that is, feeling. The phenomena of experience are constructed by the structures of transcendental consciousness so that the structures of thinking can be directly contemplated.

And, finally, modern cognitive psychology does not allow distinguishing the pure content of experience. Therefore, first of all, perception acts as a special form of thinking. And secondly, thinking and experience interact and influence each other so much that there is no sharp difference. "Any experience suggests unusual mental schemes. On the other hand, even in such non-experiential sciences as mathematics (cited as an example of "pure" a priori thinking) there are guesses, hypotheses, rejection of what seemed unquestionable" (Lektorsky, 2001, p. 141).

Therefore, according to the thought of V. Lektorsky, who in turn follows Kant, perception is a special form of thinking, which does not depend on the conscious activity of the subject. It was on this basis that Kant identified two forms of thinking – reason and understanding. Reasonable thinking – is a synthesis of sensual perception. Rational thinking – is a synthesis of the transcendental world's ideas (the God). The latter ones can be neither the subject of empirical experience, nor the subject of a priori experience. Therefore, thinking has its own limit. Thus, the possibility of thinking is determined by the conceptual framework of culture, history, science – paradigms (Kuhn) or episteme (Foucault).

Further V. Lektorsky notes: "... to date, it has become common opinion in cognitive science, that at an unconscious level, a person carries out many different types of mental activity: putting forward and testing hypotheses, reasoning, interpretation, etc." (Lektorsky, 2001, page 146). Regarding the unconscious level, the researcher observes that this is not about the physiological processes occurring in neurons, but rather mental ones, emphasizing that there is only part of the thinking that is conscious. That is, the saying "I think" is reflective. But it does not tackle the reflection of images of thinking.

"The latter is possible on the basis of the statement "I think that I think" (Lektorsky, 2001, p. 146). Reflection of similar degree can be called thinking about thinking or critical thinking. The rest is objectified in the form of texts or by other means of external implementation. The latter of the mentioned is the norm of thinking, according to classical philosophy (Absolute Spirit of G. Hegel).

Today it is already clear that reflection on thinking can never be completed, if only because it is historical in nature. And as for the processes of thinking on the unconscious level of the individual, it can be said that similar thinking is not recognized by the individual himself. Although namely these processes can become the subject of research by a specialist in cognitive science.

In this sense, non-classical epistemology comes to rethinking the basis of classical epistemology – subject. As it is known, the word subject originates from lat. subjectus – what the basis is. Moreover, B. Lektorsky notes that the whole problematics of the subject in classical philosophy is identical to the center of consciousness. At the same time, empiricists did not see the independent beginning of the existence of Self. Transcendentalists distinguished between empirical and transcendental Self, and therefore – they differentiated Subject as well. Modern philosophy, as a rule, implies a specific individual by subject. In this sense, the subject acts as I, in relation to another individual. As a social phenomenon, in addition to an individual, a collective subject is distinguished as a carrier of the norms of activity of collective consciousness.

According to V. Lektorsky, the basis for understanding self-awareness is "not awareness of consciousness, but the perception of one's own body and its place in the system of other bodies and events of the physical world", in the non-classical theory of cognition. (Lektorsky, 2001, page. 169). And this is not the structure implied by phenomenology. "The subject looks at the arms, legs and other parts of the body, hears and sees proper steps, hears the sounds of proper voice, feels the movements of his limbs and head, receives various kinds of information from all parts of the body" (Lektorsky, 2001, p. 169).

Secondly, the act of reflection requires that Ego makes an object of him- or herself. As a result of such self-perception, Ego turns into an Ego-concept, a theory. Moreover, this – is not just knowledge that it exists, it is also a means of critical rethinking and transforming the Ego itself. "If for Kant and Fichte the highest principle of self-awareness was the position "I = I", then from the point of view of modern understanding, reflection aimed at Ego serves as a way to change self-identity (Lektorsky, 2001, p. 170).

The non-classical understanding of Self, developed in the philosophy of the 20th century, refuses the understanding of Self, which was formulated by Descartes. At the same time, it is important to emphasize that this does not mean giving up the problem. The Self is understood as an expression of fundamental dependencies associated, firstly, with the inclusion of a person in the world of objects and situations through his body, and secondly, with a person's attitude towards other people, among other things, through communication» (Lektorsky, 2001, pp. 176-177). V. Lektorsky notes that the non-classical interpretation of Self possesses such features as:

1) embodiment of Ego. This one opens up the phenomenon of the Ego's self-experience for philosophy. Unlike classical philosophy, acts of individual consciousness are identified upon condition of their correlation with a particular individual. That is, without the human body, Ego does not exist (Popper, Eccles, 1981).

Thus, Piaget believes that at the first stages of psychological development, the child merges with his body. She does not form an attitude towards herself from a distance, that is, as if she would act for someone's part (Piaget, 1951). E. Husserl draws attention in his later works, to the fact that "the objective structure of experience is constituted through the attitude towards the individual's body and his unique position" (Lektorsky, 2001, p. 177). Zh.-P. Sartre asserts that the knowledge of empirical consciousness is inseparable from the experience of the proper body. At this stage, the subject does not exist as an Ego. The emergence of the Ego means a break with direct experience (Sartre, 2000). "As shown in modern psychology, in particular, in the works of J. Gibson (Gibson, 1988) and V. Neisser (Neisser, 1981), the subject's perception of his body, its position among other objects of experience, and the perception of external bodies of objects and events mutually presuppose and complement each other" (Lektorsky, 2001, p. 178).

2) incomplete self-evidence of Ego. For classical philosophy, self and consciousness are not only self-evident, but they are also the only unquestionable thing. This does not mean that there is doubt in the existence of the Self. "But for a non-classical understanding of the Self, consciousness is not a separate world, the whole meaning of consciousness consists precisely in the orientation in external reality, and if the subject's understanding of his experiences from the point of view of attributing them to reality turns out to be erroneous, then this also means erroneous judgments of consciousness, and thus about oneself, because outside of these states the Ego does not exist" (Lektorsky, 2001, p. 179).

Z. Freud's psychoanalysis substantiates that the Self does not know the deep state of its own psyche at all, since their mechanism belongs not to consciousness, but to the subconsciousness. In modern philosophical and psychological literature, the polemic about possible forms of Ego's self-deception continues.

That is, according to V. Lektorsky, for the non-classical approach Ego doesn't rank among the primary data. It is formed under conditions, which are particular enough, during interaction of an individual with other people.

When Descartes stated: "I think", he usually asserted the fact of existence, but on the other hand, he identified this fact with consciousness. However, this solitary subject of classical philosophy cannot say this without connection to the world, because the self-statement is an act of self-reflection. And this is possible only under condition that Ego is capable of approaching himself from the standpoint of another person. Moreover, this "other person" is generalized thanks to which Ego is able to think about its past and form its future (I-concept).

This is what becomes the subject of non-classical philosophy. "So, for example, J.P. Sartre emphasizes that the Self is not only alien to the nature of individual consciousness (which merges with its body in its subjective givens), but also in a certain sense distorts its characteristics" (Lektorsky, 2001, p. 180), since the consciousness in itself is free, and

the Self always limits this freedom to the specific characteristics of a given individual. As a result, knowledge about the Self is not capable of giving complete knowledge about a human as such.

But even the Ego itself is dynamic, constantly changing its image, as a person lives in specific communities. M. Bakhtin emphasizes that the self-perception of the Ego (I for myself) differs from the individual's perception by the second self (I for the other). And it is possible to become a full-fledged Self only when the attitude towards oneself is taken into account, from the point of view of another person. "All types of the life of consciousness, including rueful feelings, thoughts, self-image, presuppose an attitude to oneself as if from the outside, i.e. from the point of view of another person" (Bakhtin, 1979, pp. 43-50).

The contemporary American philosopher and psychologist R. Hare claims that Ego is a product of particular communications, and therefore it has a discursive nature. Ego is not a subjective experience, but a unique theory, formed by culture. "In our culture, it has three functions: A. Expresses the formal unity of consciousness, plays the role of its center; Б. Characterizes unity and continuity of individual life, biography; B. Finally, it embodies the agent of actions carried out on the basis of freely made decisions" (Lektorsky, 2001, page 181). What is more, any function can be internalized only on the basis of free decisions. After all, "the modern self is a fragile formation, possible only in certain cultural and historical conditions (Mikhailov, 1964; Kon, 1979; Lektorsky, 1980; Taylor, 1989)".

It is quite an interesting thought by V. Lektorsky, regarding post-non-classical approaches to the understanding of the self. Yes, one of the functions of the self is to ensure the unity of the biography. And this is possible not only through the agency of individual memory, but also with the help of texts. In this case, Ego exists not only bodily, but as a "file I" that can exist simultaneously in different places.

Postmodernists conclude that the Ego itself has disappeared in modern cultures, on the basis of the fact that the Ego is the result of communicative relations. The argument is the "fragmentation" of consciousness and the destruction of traditions and the hierarchy of values. Ego is not even the author of the proper actions. It is only a reaction of the communication systems in which the individual is included, and hence the problem of self-identification makes no sense.

But V. Lektorsky believes that communication flows will not dissolve the Self. On the contrary, it leads to an increase in the role of creativity, which means an increase in individualization. Of course, contemporary culture requires other means of identification, hence it forms other types of personality, but it is not correct to talk about the disappearance of Ego.

Conclusions. V. Lektorsky states that in the last decades of the XX century non-classical epistemology begins to form. The following peculiarities are characteristic of the latter:

1. Rejection of absolute criticism. That is, knowledge does not start from scratch. Moreover, the basis of knowledge is faith as a logical form of the existence of knowledge.

"The attitude of distrust and the search for absolute self-reliability is replaced by the attitude of trust, in the results of the activities of others as well, because without it, no collective activity, including cognitive activity, is possible - especially in modern "big science" (Lektorsky, 2009, p.16).

2. Rejection of fundamentalism. Positivist attempts to separate knowledge from ignorance led to defeat. This results in the impossibility of absolute substantiation of knowledge.

3. Rejection of subject-centrism. The subject is a product of communication. In this regard, important ideas were expressed by the outstanding domestic psychologist L. Vygotsky, according to whom the inner subjective world of consciousness can be understood as a product of intersubjective activity, including communication. Thus, subjectivity turns out to be a cultural-and-historical product. (Lektorsky, 2009, p. 19).

4. Rejection of scientific centrism. The classical version of epistemology precedes all other branches of science in the system of the tradition of the classical philosophical paradigm. Moreover, it justifies science itself. But, on the other hand, V. Lektorsky rightly notes that criticism of classical epistemology is accompanied by attempts to abandon epistemological problematics. Thus, some variants of "social epistemology" reject the asymmetry of knowledge and delusion. As a result, the competition occurs not for the purpose of searching for the truth, but for the purpose of obtaining power. Similar rejection of epistemology, as well as of philosophy, is implemented in postmodernism. "Linguistic turn", which occurred as a result of the analytical philosophy of 1950-1970, in its essence, actually liquidated epistemology, according to V. Lektorsky. The latter of the two was replaced by the philosophy of language. As a result, everything that is not subject to verbal expression for philosophy becomes non-existent.

Nevertheless, the peculiarity of the XX century, according to V. Lektorsky, is that: "... the "linguistic turn" was replaced by a "cognitive and epistemological turn" (Lektorsky, 2009, page 23). Which means that epistemology is not interested in the relationship between text and discourse. It's so, because the latter may not be related to knowledge, while knowledge itself, which may be present in the text, could be explicit or implicit. Which means that the modern philosophy of speech does not precede epistemology, as it claimed from the beginning. This makes it possible not to fall into the new circle of modern scholasticism.

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